

Module 12

Latent Variabl Model

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Agenda

- k-means algorithm

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- Gaussian Mixture Models (GMM)

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- EM Algorithm in general
 - How to derive E / M-step
 - Why EM algorithm works
 - Uncertainty quantification under EM

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- Useful resource: Bishop (2006) Chapter 9

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- k-means algorithm
- Gaussian Mixture Models (GMM)
- EM Algorithm in general
 - How to derive E / M-step
 - Why EM algorithm works
 - Uncertainty quantification under EM
- Useful resource: Bishop (2006) Chapter 9
- For future reference (not for final exam, but in appendix)
 - Variational Inference
 - MCMC Methods

k-means algorithm (Overview)

- **Goal:** discover the latent cluster that separates the data well
 - Input: $\mathbf{X}_i$ (observed data), K (number of clusters)

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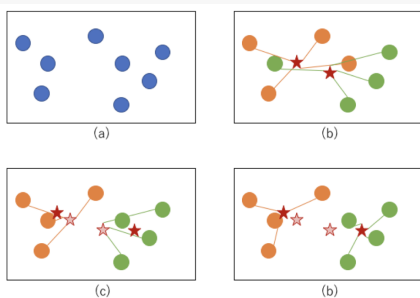
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k-means algorithm: optimization (1)

- Formally, the objective function is written as

$$\{\mathbf{Z}, \boldsymbol{\mu}\} := \arg \min_{\mathbf{Z}, \boldsymbol{\mu}} \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^K \mathbf{1}\{Z_i = k\} \|\mathbf{X}_i - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k\|_2^2$$

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- Let's see why Lloyd's algorithm solves this objective function.
- Now, let's fix the assignment $\mathbf{Z}$. Then, the derivative w.r.t. μ_k is

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial \mu_k} \sum_{i: Z_i=k} \|\mathbf{x}_i - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k\|_2^2 = -2 \cdot \sum_{i: Z_i=k} (\mathbf{x}_i - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)$$

which means that setting $\mu_k = \frac{1}{n_k} \sum_{i: Z_i=k} \mathbf{x}_i$ (equivalent to STEP 2 in Lloyd's algorithm) achieves the first order condition

k-means algorithm: optimization (2)

- Now, think about optimizing cluster assignment given the centroid

$$\{\mathbf{Z}^{(t+1)}\} := \arg \min_{\mathbf{Z}} \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{k=1}^K \mathbf{1}\{Z_i = k\} \|\mathbf{x}_i - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k^{(t)}\|_2^2$$

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- Note that the objective function is separable across i :

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- Therefore, for each observation i , we can optimize independently:

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- This is exactly STEP 3 in Lloyd's algorithm (assign to nearest centroid)
 - Note that this might yield local optimal depending on initialization, so typically repeat the procedure with multiple initialization and pick up the one that minimizes the objective function the most.

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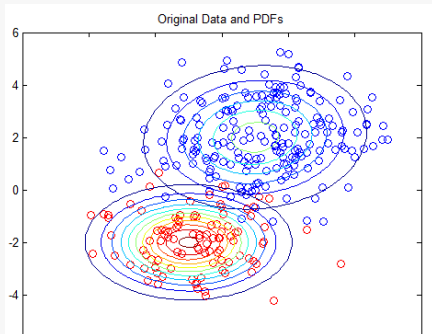
where $\boldsymbol{\pi} = [\pi_1, \dots, \pi_K]^\top$, $\sum_{k=1}^K \pi_k = 1$ and $0 \leq \pi_k \leq 1$.

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Likelihood of Latent Variable Model (1)

- Let's start with the likelihood of GMM as if we observe latent variable.

$$\mathcal{L}^{(\text{full})}(\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Z}; \pi, \mu, \Sigma) = \prod_{i=1}^n \prod_{k=1}^K (\pi_k \mathcal{N}(X_i; \mu_k, \Sigma_k))^{\mathbf{1}_{\{Z_i=k\}}}$$

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- Thus, if we observe Z_i , then we get MLE

$$\hat{\pi}_k = \frac{1}{n} \sum_{i=1}^n \mathbf{1}\{Z_i = k\}, \quad \hat{\mu}_k = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n \mathbf{1}\{Z_i = k\} X_i}{\sum_{i=1}^n \mathbf{1}\{Z_i = k\}}$$

$$\hat{\Sigma}_k = \frac{1}{\sum_{i=1}^n \mathbf{1}\{Z_i = k\}} \sum_{i=1}^n \mathbf{1}\{Z_i = k\} (X_i - \hat{\mu}_k)(X_i - \hat{\mu}_k)^\top$$

- So, if we observe Z_i , then the problem is easy

Likelihood of Latent Variable Model (2)

- However, Z_i is latent. We cannot observe. What we observe is the observed likelihood:

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{L}^{(\text{obs})}(\mathbf{X}; \boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}, \boldsymbol{\pi}) &= \sum_{\mathbf{z}} \mathcal{L}^{(\text{full})}(\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{z}; \boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}, \boldsymbol{\pi}) \\&= \sum_{z_1, \dots, z_n} \prod_{i=1}^n \prod_{k=1}^K (\pi_k \mathcal{N}(X_i; \mu_k, \Sigma_k))^{1_{\{Z_i=k\}}} \\&= \sum_{z_1, \dots, z_n} \prod_{i=1}^n (\pi_{Z_i} \mathcal{N}(X_i; \mu_{Z_i}, \Sigma_{Z_i})) \\&= \prod_{i=1}^n \sum_{z_i} (\pi_{z_i} \mathcal{N}(X_i; \mu_{z_i}, \Sigma_{z_i})) \\&= \prod_{i=1}^n \sum_k \pi_k \mathcal{N}(X_i; \mu_k, \Sigma_k)\end{aligned}$$

where the last equality is by re-indexing.

- Recall that $\Pr(X = x) = \sum_y \Pr(X_i = x, Y_i = y)$ (this is why you need to integrate out the latent)

Problem in Latent Variable Model

- Therefore, the observed data log likelihood is given by

$$\log p(\mathbf{X} \mid \boldsymbol{\mu}, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}, \boldsymbol{\pi}) = \sum_{i=1}^n \log \left\{ \sum_k \pi_k \mathcal{N}(X_i; \mu_k, \Sigma_k) \right\}$$

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- This is hard to maximize because of the structure $\log(\text{sum})$
 - The log of sum over convex function is generally not convex
 - To see why, consider the example

$$f(x) = \log\{\exp(-[x - 2]^2) + \exp(-([x + 2]^2))\}$$

where you see each term is convex

- When $x = 2 \rightarrow$ first term dominates (peak)
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- Similarly, GMM suffers from non-convexity problem
 - There are K latent cluster, but each cluster label does not have meaning
 - **Label switching**: There are $K!$ equivalent solutions

EM Algorithm for GMM (1)

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- Now, check the first order condition for each parameter. The derivative w.r.t. $\boldsymbol{\mu}_k$ is given by

$$0 = - \sum_{i=1}^n \underbrace{\frac{\pi_k \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{X}_i; \boldsymbol{\mu}_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k)}{\sum_{j=1}^K \pi_j \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{X}_i; \boldsymbol{\mu}_j, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_j)}}_{:= \gamma_{i,k} (= \Pr(Z_i=k \mid \mathbf{X}_i))} \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k^{-1} (\mathbf{X}_i - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)$$

where $\gamma_{i,k}$ is called responsibility parameter.

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- Similarly, the derivative with respect to $\boldsymbol{\mu}_k$ yields

$$\boldsymbol{\mu}_k = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k} \mathbf{X}_i}{\sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k}}$$

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- This gives

$$\Sigma_k = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k} (\mathbf{X}_i - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)(\mathbf{X}_i - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)^\top}{\sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k}}.$$

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which yields

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- Since $\sum \pi_k = 1$, $\sum_k \{ \sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k} + \lambda \pi_k \} = \sum_k \sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k} + \lambda = 0$.
 - I.e., $\lambda = -N$
 - This gives us $\pi_k = \sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k} / N$.

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- **E-Step:** Calculate the responsibility parameter given μ_k , Σ_k , and π :

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- **E-Step:** Calculate the responsibility parameter given $\boldsymbol{\mu}_k$, $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k$, and π_k :

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- **M-Step:** Maximize the log-likelihood. I.e., obtain the MLE estimator given $\gamma_{i,k}$ by

$$\boldsymbol{\mu}_k = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k} \mathbf{X}_i}{\sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k}}, \quad \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k} (\mathbf{X}_i - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)(\mathbf{X}_i - \boldsymbol{\mu}_k)^\top}{\sum_{i=1}^n \gamma_{i,k}}$$
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- Understand the difference between latent variable and parameter

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 - Then, the full-data log likelihood is written as $\log p(\mathbf{x}, \mathbf{z}, \theta)$ and observed data log likelihood (known as evidence) is $\log p(\mathbf{x}; \theta)$
 - Our goal is to maximize the observed log-likelihood $\log p(\mathbf{x}; \theta)$, but suppose that its optimization is hard while the optimization of full data likelihood is significantly easier
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EM Algorithm in general (1)

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EM Algorithm in general (2)

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 - EM avoids this by:
 - E-step:** “fill in” missing data using current model (soft assignment)
 - M-step:** maximize as if data were complete

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- Now, notice that

$$\begin{aligned}\log p(x; \theta) &= \log \left(\sum_z p(x, z; \theta) \right) \\ &= \log \left(\sum_z \frac{p(x, z; \theta)}{q(z)} q(z) \right) \\ &\geq \sum_z \log \frac{p(x, z; \theta)}{q(z)} q(z) \quad (\because \text{Jensen's inequality}) \\ &= \mathbb{E}_z[\log p(x, z; \theta)] - \mathbb{E}_z[\log q(z)] := \mathcal{L}(q, \theta)\end{aligned}$$

where the last term $\mathcal{L}(q, \theta)$ is called **Evidence Lower Bound (ELBO)**

Theory of EM Algorithm (2)

- Notice that ELBO is written as

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{L}(q, \theta) &= \mathbb{E}_z[\log p(z \mid x; \theta)p(x; \theta)] - \mathbb{E}_z[\log q(z)] \\ &= \mathbb{E}_z[\log p(z \mid x; \theta)] - \mathbb{E}_z[\log q(z)] + \log p(x; \theta) \\ &= \underbrace{\log p(x; \theta)}_{\text{Evidence}} - \text{KL}(q(z) \parallel p(z \mid x; \theta))\end{aligned}$$

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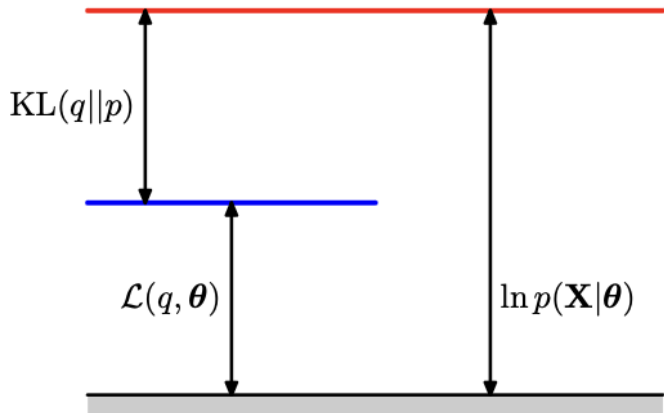
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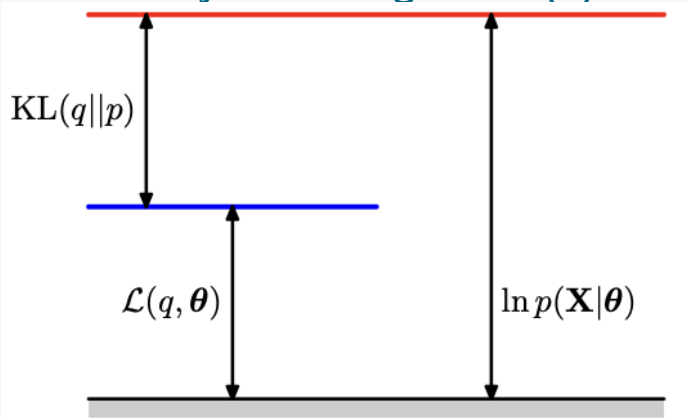
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- Recall that KL-divergence is non-negative and takes 0 when $q(z) = p(z \mid x; \theta)$

Theory of EM Algorithm (3)

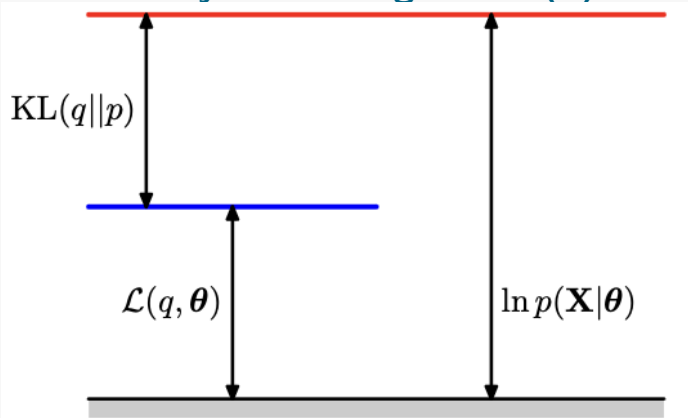


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- Notice that we have two unknowns: q and θ
 - We iteratively update them

Theory of EM Algorithm (4)

- **E-step:** Maximize ELBO $\mathcal{L}(q, \theta)$ with respect to q while fixing $\theta = \theta^{\text{old}}$.
 - Notice that once θ is fixed, we can maximize ELBO by choosing q makes KL divergence to be 0 (recall the previous derivation)

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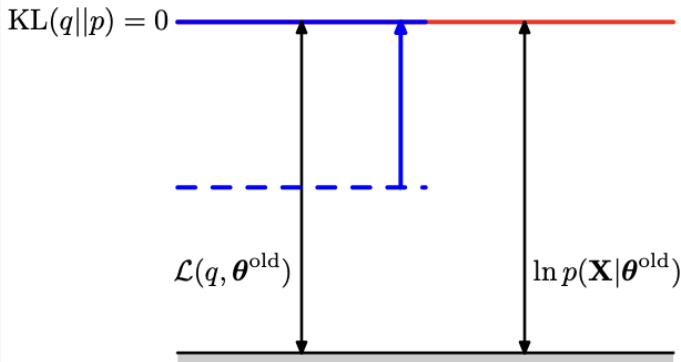
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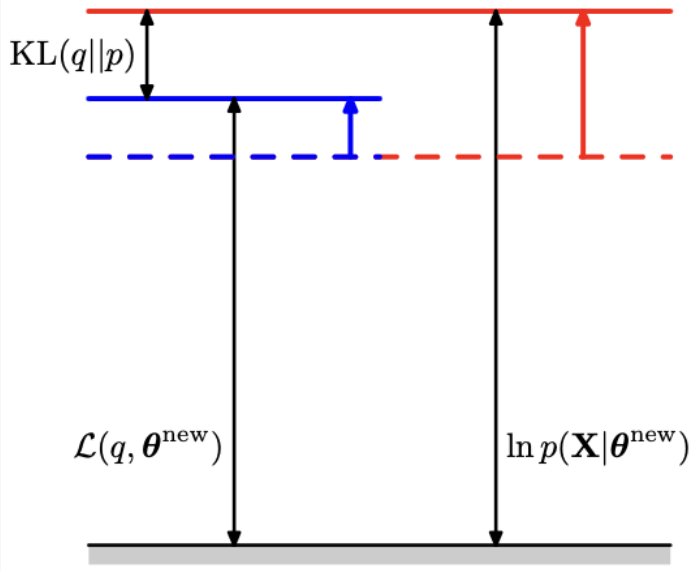
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- This is the justification of maximizing Q-function

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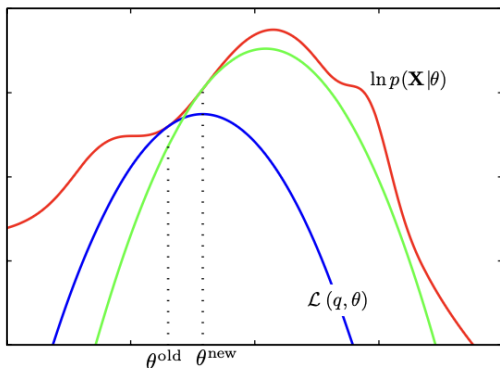


Theory of EM Algorithm (7)

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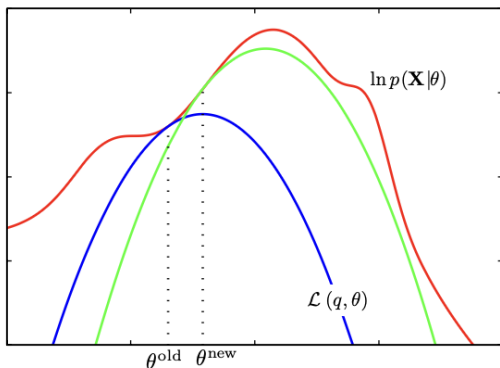
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- E-step: Make ELBO $\mathcal{L}(q, \theta)$ tangential to log-likelihood (maximization of ELBO w.r.t. q under fixed θ)
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- Thus, the observed-data log-likelihood never decreases.

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- Implication: We can easily obtain the complete data information (similar to E-step), so we only need to obtain missing data part
 - Importantly, this avoids differentiating the observed log-likelihood directly (which involves log-sum structure)

Derivation of Missing-Data Principle

- Now, by factorization,

$$f(\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Z} \mid \theta) = f(\mathbf{Z} \mid \mathbf{X}, \theta) f(\mathbf{X} \mid \theta).$$

- So taking logs gives

$$\ell(\theta \mid \mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Z}) = \log f(\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Z} \mid \theta) = \log f(\mathbf{Z} \mid \mathbf{X}, \theta) + \log f(\mathbf{X} \mid \theta).$$

- Now take the Hessian with respect to θ , we get

$$\ell''(\theta \mid \mathbf{X}) = \ell''(\theta \mid \mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Z}) - \nabla^2 \log f(\mathbf{Z} \mid \mathbf{X}, \theta).$$

- Finally, take conditional expectation given $\mathbf{X}$ (notice that the first term only depends on $\mathbf{X}$)

$$-\ell''(\theta \mid \mathbf{X}) = \mathbb{E}[-\ell''(\theta \mid \mathbf{X}, \mathbf{Z}) \mid \mathbf{X}] - \mathbb{E}\left[-\nabla^2 \log f(\mathbf{Z} \mid \mathbf{X}, \theta) \mid \mathbf{X}\right].$$

Extra: Approximation Methods

- **Problem of EM algorithm:** We need to evaluate the expectation of the complete-data log-likelihood with respect to the posterior distribution of latent variable
 - In many applications, however, this is not possible.
- In such situation, we need to use approximation methods
 - Stochastic: MCMC (Metropolis Hasting, Gibbs Sampling, Hamiltonian Monte Carlo)
 - Gives accurate estimates with uncertainty quantification, but not scalable for large and complex data
 - Deterministic: Variational Inference
 - Gives approximate estimates, but scalable and fast
- This is not required for final exam, but it is the main technique you need to use in future
 - Variational Inference: Ch.10 of Bishop (2006), Blei et al. (2017 JASA)
 - MCMC: Ch.11 of Bishop (2006)

Extra: Variational Inference (1)

- Now, we are in the bayesian framework. So, the parameter θ is a random variable
 - Thus, we denote the set of all parameters and latent variable as $\mathbf{Z}$
 - Our goal is to find the distribution that is the closest to the exact posterior $p(\mathbf{Z} | \mathbf{X})$, which is minimizing the KL-divergence $\text{KL}(q(z) | p(z | x))$ over some candidate set of distributions $\mathcal{Q}$.
- Importantly, the minimization of KL divergence is equivalent to the maximization of ELBO:

$$\begin{aligned} q^*(z) &= \arg \min_{q(z) \in \mathcal{Q}} \text{KL}(q(z) || \underbrace{p(z | x)}_{\text{Posterior}}) \\ &= \arg \min_{q(z) \in \mathcal{Q}} \left(\underbrace{\log p(x)}_{\text{constant}} - \text{ELBO}(q) \right) \\ &= \arg \max_{q(z) \in \mathcal{Q}} \text{ELBO}(q) \end{aligned}$$

Extra: Variational Inference (2)

- What kind of Q should we use?
 - **Mean Field Approximation:** Choose Q to restrict that latent variables are mutually independent; i.e.,

$$q(z) = \prod_{j=1}^m q_j(z_j)$$

- It is crazy assumption, but often works well in practice
- **Pro:** Mean-field family is expressive because it can capture any marginal density of the latent variable
- **Con:** It cannot capture the correlation between latent variables

Extra: Variational Inference (3)

- Now, let's focus on j -th latent $q_j(z_j)$.

$$\begin{aligned}\text{ELBO}(q_j) &= \mathbb{E}_{z_j \sim q_j} \left[\underbrace{\mathbb{E}_{z_{-j}} \left\{ \log p(x, z_j, z_{-j}) \right\}}_{:= f(z_j)} \right] - \mathbb{E}_{z_j \sim q_j} [\log q_j(z_j)] + \text{const} \\ &= -\mathbb{E}_{z_j \sim q_j} \left[\log \frac{q_j(z_j)}{\exp(f(z_j))} \right] + \text{const} \\ &= -\text{KL}(q_j(z_j) \parallel \exp(f(z_j))) + \text{const}\end{aligned}$$

- Thus, when ELBO is maximized,

$$q_j^*(z_j) \propto \exp \left\{ \mathbb{E}_{z_{-j}} \left\{ \log p(x, z_j, z_{-j}) \right\} \right\}$$

Extra: Variational Inference (4)

Coordinate ascent mean-field variational inference (CAVI)

- **Input:** A model $p(x, z)$, data $p(z)$
- **Output:** Variational density $q(z)$
- **Algorithm**

1. for each $j \in 1, \dots, m$, set

$$q_j(z_j) \propto \exp \left\{ \mathbb{E}_{z_{-j}} \left\{ \log p(x, z_j, z_{-j}) \right\} \right\}$$

- Each coordinate density is conditional on all the other coordinates
- Similar to Gibbs sampling

2. Compute $\text{ELBO}(q)$ and repeat until convergence

- **Caveat:** ELBO is a non-convex objective function, which is only guaranteed to converge to a local optimum

→ Sensitive to the initialization

Extra: From VI to MCMC

- In both VI and MCMC, the goal is often to approximate a complicated distribution
- In Bayesian latent variable models, this target is usually the posterior

$$p^*(\mathbf{z}) = p(\mathbf{z} \mid \mathbf{X}).$$

- But for MCMC theory, we do not need to write the observed data $\mathbf{X}$ explicitly
- So, from now on, we simply write the target distribution as

$$p^*(\mathbf{z}).$$

- **VI**: approximate $p^*(\mathbf{z})$ by optimizing over $q(\mathbf{z})$
- **MCMC**: generate samples from $p^*(\mathbf{z})$ by constructing a Markov chain whose stationary distribution is $p^*(\mathbf{z})$

Extra: Theory of MCMC (1)

- A first-order Markov chain is defined as

$$p(\mathbf{z}^{m+1} \mid \mathbf{z}^1, \dots, \mathbf{z}^m) = p(\mathbf{z}^{m+1} \mid \mathbf{z}^m)$$

- Thus, by the law of total probability,

$$p(\mathbf{z}^{m+1}) = \sum_{\mathbf{z}^m} \underbrace{p(\mathbf{z}^{m+1} \mid \mathbf{z}^m)}_{\text{Transition Prob}} p(\mathbf{z}^m)$$

- **Detailed Balancing:** With transition probabilities $T(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{z}')$,

$$p^*(\mathbf{z})T(\mathbf{z}, \mathbf{z}') = p^*(\mathbf{z}')T(\mathbf{z}', \mathbf{z})$$

- Detailed balancing is a *sufficient* condition to ensure that the required distribution $p(\mathbf{z})$ is stationary

Extra: Theory of MCMC (2)

- The detailed balancing implies stationarity because of the following:

$$\begin{aligned} p(z) &= \sum_{z'} p^{prev}(z') T(z', z) \\ &= \sum_{z'} p^{prev}(z) T(z, z') \quad (\text{detailed balancing}) \\ &= p^{prev}(z) \sum_{z'} T(z, z') \\ &= p^{prev}(z) \underbrace{\sum_{z'} p(z' | z)}_{=1} \\ &= p^{prev}(z) \end{aligned}$$

Extra: Theory of MCMC (3)

- We want our chains to converge (in the limit) to the same stationary state, regardless of starting distribution.
 - Such chains are called **ergodic**.
- For finite state spaces, our chains converge to equilibrium under two relatively weak conditions
 1. **Irreducibility**: Any set of states can be reached from any other state in a finite number of moves $\rightarrow$ Stationary distribution is unique
 2. **Aperiodicity**: The chain does not get trapped in cycles
- Rarely justified theoretically
 - Instead, we can check it empirically by running the estimation multiple times (chains) and checking the convergence (e.g., trace plot / $\hat{R}$)

Extra: Metropolis-Hasting (M-H) algorithm

1. **Initialization:** Choose an arbitrary point x'
2. For each iteration at step m ,
 - 2.1 **Propose** a candidate z^* for the next sample by picking from a proposal distribution $q(z^* | z^m)$
 - 2.2 **Accept** the sample if $u \leq \alpha(z^*, z^m)$, where $u \sim \text{Unif}(0, 1)$ and

$$\alpha(z^*, z^m) = \min\left(1, \frac{\tilde{p}(z^*)q(z^m | z^*)}{\tilde{p}(z^m)q(z^* | z^m)}\right)$$

- This works because it satisfies the detailed balancing:

$$\begin{aligned} p(z)q(z | z')\alpha(z', z) &= \min\left\{p(z)q(z | z'), p(z')q(z' | z)\right\} \\ &= \min\left\{p(z')q(z' | z), p(z)q(z | z')\right\} = p(z')q(z' | z)\alpha(z, z') \end{aligned}$$

Extra: Metropolis algorithm

- Suppose that your proposal distribution is symmetric: i.e.,

$$q(y | x) = q(x | y)$$

- Example: $q(x | y) = q((x - y)^2)$
- Then, your ratio is

$$\alpha(z^*, z^m) = \min\left(1, \frac{\tilde{p}(z^*)}{\tilde{p}(z^m)}\right)$$

- This is called **Metropolis algorithm**
- **Problem (both M and M-H):** The acceptance rate may be low, sensitive to the choice of $q(\cdot | \cdot)$, does not work well for high-dimensional settings.

Extra: Gibbs Sampling

- **Setting:** Suppose we want to get $p(z_1, \dots, z_k)$
- **Algorithm:** After initialization, for each step m , keep sampling

$$z_1^{m+1} \sim p(z_1 \mid z_2^m, \dots, z_k^m)$$

$$z_2^{m+1} \sim p(z_2 \mid z_1^{m+1}, z_3^m, \dots, z_k^m)$$

$$\vdots$$

$$z_k^{m+1} \sim p(z_k \mid z_1^{m+1}, z_2^{m+1}, \dots, z_{k-1}^{m+1})$$

- **AD:** Always accept the sample
- **DA:** This approach works only when full conditional distributions are easy to sample

Extra: Gibbs Sampling as Special Case of M-H

- If we use the proposal $q(z^* | z^m) = p(z_i^* | z_{-i}^m)$ and $q(z^m | z^*) = p(z_i^m | z_{-i}^*)$, then Gibbs Sampling can be seen as a special case of M-H
- In Gibbs Sampling, we always accept the proposal because

$$\begin{aligned}\alpha(z^*, z^m) &= \min\left(1, \frac{\tilde{p}(z^*)q(z^m | z^*)}{\tilde{p}(z^m)q(z^* | z^m)}\right) \quad (\text{Definition}) \\ &= \min\left(1, \frac{\tilde{p}(z_{-i}^*)\tilde{p}(z_i^* | z_{-i}^*)p(z_i^m | z_{-i}^*)}{p(z_{-i}^m)\tilde{p}(z_i^m | z_{-i}^m)p(z_i^* | z_{-i}^m)}\right) \\ &= \min(1, 1) = 1\end{aligned}$$

where the last equality is by $z_{-i}^* = z_{-i}^m$ (as only i changes)

Extra: Metropolis within Gibbs

- Gibbs sampling is sometimes hard to implement when full-conditional is not known
 - M-H can solve this problem, but does not work well for high-dimensional setting
 - This is because M-H considers the update of all the parameters at the same time as marginal
- We instead consider doing the M-H for each full conditional in Gibbs sampling
- This is called **Metropolis within Gibbs**

Extra: Collapsed Gibbs Sampling

- We can speed up the Gibbs sampler by marginalizing some of the latent variables.
 - This is called **Collapsed Gibbs Sampler**
 - **AD**: Faster convergence (b/c fewer parameters to be sampled)
- **Setup**: let's split the latent variable into
 1. z : variables to sample
 2. θ : variables to collapse
- Then, instead of sample from $p(z, \theta)$, we can integrate out θ :

$$p(z \mid x) = \int p(z, \theta \mid x) d\theta$$

Then, we run Gibbs sampler updates like:

$$z_i^{(t+1)} \sim p(z_i \mid z_{-i}, x)$$

under the marginal posterior

Extra: Hamiltonian/Hybrid Monte Carlo (HMC)

- **Idea:** To use momentum to update the states to mitigate the random walk behavior of GS and MH:
 - x : position variable / u : momentum variable
 - Consider

$$\underbrace{H(x_i, u_i)}_{\text{Hamiltonian}} = \underbrace{U(x_i)}_{\text{Potential Energy}} + \underbrace{K(u_i)}_{\text{Kinetic Energy}} = -\log p(x) + \frac{1}{2} u^T M^{-1} u$$

which satisfies Hamiltonian Equations:

$$\frac{\partial x}{\partial t} = \frac{\partial H}{\partial u}, \quad \frac{\partial u}{\partial t} = -\frac{\partial H}{\partial x}$$

Extra: Hamiltonian/Hybrid Monte Carlo (HMC)

- For each iteration at step m ,
 1. Updating momentum distribution $u_0 \sim N(0, M)$
 2. For $l = 1, \dots, L - 1$, updating (x, u) by

$$\begin{aligned}u^{l+1/2} &\leftarrow u^l + \frac{1}{2}\epsilon \frac{d \log(x | y)}{dx} \\x^{l+1} &\leftarrow x^l + \epsilon M^{-1} u^l \\u^{l+1} &\leftarrow u^{l+1/2} + \frac{1}{2}\epsilon \frac{d \log(x | y)}{dx}\end{aligned}$$

3. Accept (u^L, x^L) with probability

$$\min\left(\frac{p(x^* | y)p(u^*)}{p(x^{t-1} | y)p(u^{t-1})}, 1\right)$$

- **Takeaway:** HMC is one type of M-H methods!
 - Notice that we accept or reject in the same way as M-H